

POL 111

Elements of Political Science

Deep Summary and Revision Guide

5 Modules • 21 Units

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MODULE 1

Scope, Methods, Sub-divisions and Subfields of Political Science

Unit 1: Definition and Scope of Political Science

Definitions of politics fall broadly into two types: those that associate politics with government, legal government, or the state, and those that discuss it within the precinct of power, authority, or conflict. In Alfred de Grazia's view, politics includes the events that happen around the decision-making centres of government, while Charles Hyneman held that legal government -- the legally based institutions of a society which may make legally binding decisions -- is the subject matter of the discipline. Such definitions are criticised as inadequate and restrictive, since a scholar studying pre-colonial African society would find traditional rulers and elders making political decisions without parliaments, congresses or courts. William Bluhm therefore defined politics as a social process characterised by activity involving rivalry and co-operation in the exercise of power, culminating in the making of decisions for a group, which allows the study of politics wherever power relationships or conflict exist. David Easton defined politics as the authoritative allocation of values for a society, a policy being authoritative if those to whom it applies consider that they must or ought to obey it. Harold Lasswell (1936) defined politics as the study of who gets what, when, and how -- the difference being one of emphasis, since Easton focuses on the entire political system while Lasswell concentrates on the individuals with power who most affect distribution. Aristotle held that politics arises in organised states that recognise themselves as an aggregate of many members, and called politics the 'master science', not because it includes or explains the other sciences, but because it gives them priority by allowing the right institutions to develop. Six basic assumptions underpin the discipline: that all societies face scarce resources with demand exceeding supply; that dominant groups evolve a mechanism called government to manage distribution; that government allocates to some while depriving others, so policies are inherently unequal; that constant pressure exists for reallocation; that the 'haves' work to maintain the status quo while the 'have-nots' seek to overthrow it; and that rulers secure their position by persuading the masses that the system is legitimate. Political Science is broadly grouped into two divisions -- political theory (the normative aspect, concerned with the ends and limits of authority) and political organization (empirical studies, focused on the organization of government) -- and has seven subfields: Comparative Politics, Political Economy, International Relations, Political Theory or Philosophy, Public Administration, Public Policy, and Political Methodology.

Key facts to remember

- David Easton: politics = 'the authoritative allocation of values for a society'; a policy is authoritative when those affected consider they must or ought to obey it.
- Harold Lasswell (1936): politics = the study of 'who gets what, when, and how'. Easton focuses on the whole system; Lasswell on the individuals holding power.

- Alfred de Grazia: politics = events around the decision-making centres of government. Charles Hyneman: legal government is the discipline's subject matter. William Bluhm: politics = rivalry and co-operation in the exercise of power, culminating in decisions for a group.
- Aristotle called politics the 'master science' -- NOT because it includes the other sciences, but because it gives them priority by letting the right institutions develop.
- 2 sub-divisions of Political Science: political theory (normative) and political organization (empirical).
- 7 subfields: Comparative Politics, Political Economy, International Relations, Political Theory/Philosophy, Public Administration, Public Policy, Political Methodology.

How this shows up in CBT

Expect Easton, Lasswell, de Grazia, Hyneman and Bluhm matched to their exact definition, the 'master science' qualifier tested, and the 2 sub-divisions distinguished from the 7 subfields.

Unit 2: Nature and Status of Political Science

Science is a branch of knowledge dealing with a body of facts or truths systematically arranged and showing the operation of general laws, gathering facts and linking them in causal sequence to draw valid inferences. Any scientific discipline must possess five characteristics: the possibility of a consistent, concise and connected formulation; the capacity to generalise and make predictions; the possibility of verifying both the data and the generalisations; an agreement on methods; and the adequate training of those engaged in scientific work. Political Science is a social science because it deals with human beings, unlike the natural sciences which deal with matter, atoms and molecules -- and because the laws governing human behaviour are not uniform, exact or certain, its premises are weak and its conclusions at best tentative. What qualifies it as a social science is its reliance on scientific methods of research: describing concepts, testing hypotheses, and making forecasts that can be generalised across nations subject to environmental variables. Professor Seeley captured the discipline's debt to history in the formula that Political Science is the fruit of history and History is the root of Political Science, and history is regarded as the laboratory of Political Science. Against the claim of a science of politics, Russell Kirk argued that human beings are the least controllable, verifiable, law-obeying and predictable of subjects -- an argument resting on the freedom of individuals to choose their course of action. A more cynical view of politics as an art is captured by Isaac Disraeli's definition of politics as the art of governing mankind by deceiving them, and by Lasswell's description of a politician as a person with private motives, translated into public objects and rationalised as being in the public interest. Political Science intersects with other disciplines: with History (E. H. Carr defined history as the unending dialogue between the present and the past); with Ethics, best illustrated by Jeremy Bentham's utilitarian doctrine of the greatest happiness of the greatest numbers; with Economics, where money is the currency of economics and power the currency of politics, and where Kwame Nkrumah held that economic growth is a condition for the

growth of democracy, not for its establishment; with Law, through the constitutional order; with Geography, since Alfred Thayer and Sir Halford Mackinder coined the term geo-politics; and with Sociology, from which Political Science borrowed structural functionalism and Max Weber's typologies of authority.

Key facts to remember

- 5 characteristics of a scientific discipline: consistent/concise/connected formulation; capacity to generalise and predict; possibility of verification; agreement on methods; adequate training of practitioners.
- Political Science is a SOCIAL science because it deals with human beings; the natural sciences deal with matter, atoms and molecules and alone have universal validity of results and prediction.
- Professor Seeley: 'Political Science is the fruit of history and History is the root of Political Science'; history is the laboratory of Political Science.
- Russell Kirk (leading critic): human beings are the least controllable, verifiable, law-obeying and predictable of subjects.
- Isaac Disraeli: politics = 'the art of governing mankind by deceiving them'. Lasswell: a politician = a person with private motives translated into public objects and rationalised as the public interest.
- Interdisciplinary links: geo-politics coined by Alfred Thayer and Sir Halford Mackinder; structural functionalism and Weber's authority typologies borrowed from Sociology; Bentham's utilitarianism links ethics and politics.

How this shows up in CBT

Expect the 5 criteria of a science listed, Seeley's fruit/root formula and Kirk's criticism attributed correctly, and the social-vs-natural science contrasts (certainty, prediction, precision of concepts) tested directly.

Unit 3: Evolution and Methods of Political Science

The term political science is traced to Jean Bodin (1530-1596), a French political philosopher and lawyer who termed the study of politics 'Science Politique' and gave the discipline an abiding concern for the organization of institutions related to law; another Frenchman, Montesquieu (1689-1755), argued that all functions of government could be encompassed within legislation, execution and the adjudication of law. The first political scientist known to have analysed information systematically was Aristotle, who compared the constitutions of Greek city-states during the 4th century B.C. Varma delineated four features of the classical tradition -- historical-analytical, legal-institutional, normative-prescriptive, and descriptive taxonomy -- while Mbah identified five phases of the discipline's development: philosophical and deductive, historical and comparative, juridical and constitutional, observational and measurement, and psychological. In 19th century Germany,

academics developed a systematic science called 'Staatlehre' to provide useful information to governments, and the first Professor of Political Science in the United States was the German emigre Francis Lieber, appointed Chairman of Political Science at Columbia College in 1857. The Chicago school, which from the 1930s broke with the philosophical, historical and institutional approaches to emphasise the observable behaviour of man as a political creature, was the forerunner of the behavioural revolution of the 1950s; its major founder, David Easton, built it on assumptions including regularities, verification, techniques, quantification, values, systematisation, pure science and integration, and its interdisciplinary perspective is traced to the 1908 publication of *Human Nature in Politics* by Graham Wallas and *The Process of Government* by Arthur Bentley. Leading behaviouralists included David Easton, Robert Dahl, Karl Deutsch, Gabriel Almond and David Truman. From the late 1960s the post-behavioural movement, also spearheaded by Easton, sought to remove the behavioural approach's inadequacies while retaining its useful principles, resting on four pillars: primacy to the substance of investigation over research technique; transcending social conservatism to pursue progressive change; refusing to ignore realities such as the North-South poverty gap; and a people-centred study of politics guided by justice, equality and freedom, since value-neutrality is a myth. Its rallying argument is that knowledge must be put to work. Six methods are generally recognised in Political Science: the historical method, the observational method, the experimental method (Auguste Comte argued that every political change is a sort of experiment), the comparative method, the philosophical method, and the legal method -- exemplified by Jean Bodin's *Doctrine of Sovereignty*, J. Rawls's *A Theory of Justice*, and J. S. Mill's *On Liberty*.

Key facts to remember

- Jean Bodin (1530-1596) termed the study of politics 'Science Politique'; Montesquieu (1689-1755) grouped all government functions into legislation, execution and adjudication of law.
- Aristotle was the first political scientist known to have analysed information systematically, comparing Greek city-state constitutions in the 4th century B.C.
- Francis Lieber, a German emigre, was the first Professor of Political Science in the USA -- Columbia College, 1857. In 19th century Germany the systematic science was called 'Staatlehre'.
- The Chicago school was the forerunner of the behavioural revolution of the 1950s; David Easton founded the behavioural revolution AND later spearheaded post-behaviouralism ('knowledge must be put to work').
- The behavioural approach traces to two 1908 books: *Human Nature in Politics* (Graham Wallas) and *The Process of Government* (Arthur Bentley). Leading behaviouralists: Easton, Dahl, Deutsch, Almond, Truman.
- 6 methods of Political Science: historical, observational, experimental (Comte: every political change is a sort of experiment), comparative, philosophical, legal.

How this shows up in CBT

Expect Bodin credited with 'Science Politique', Lieber with the 1857 Columbia chair, Easton with BOTH behaviouralism and post-behaviouralism, and the 6 methods tested as a list (not 3).

Unit 4: Constitution and Constitutionalism

A constitution is the body of fundamental rules, written or unwritten, by which a country is governed; it is the supreme law from which other enactments draw their strength, and the only means by which government actions can be judged legal or ultra vires. A. V. Dicey explained a constitution as a document having a special legal sanctity, while Austin Ranney defined it as the whole body of fundamental rules, written or unwritten, legal and extra-legal, according to which a particular government operates. Constitutionalism deals with the rule of law -- the principle that the exercise of political power shall be bounded by rules so as to curb arbitrariness; it is government by limitations, both procedural and substantive, and as W. G. Andrew observed, under constitutional government power is proscribed and procedure prescribed, making constitutional government the antithesis of dictatorship. Following S. N. Ray, constitutionalism also rests on shared power, which exists when several independent power-holders or state organs participate in the exercise of political power subject to reciprocal control; it is not restricted to codified constitutions but also embodies respect for unwritten customs and conventions as in British democracy. A written constitution is codified in a single consultable document, typically containing a preamble expressing the goals and vision of the people (the spirit of the constitution), the organs of government and their powers, fundamental human rights with their limitations, an amendment procedure, and the power-sharing arrangement. An unwritten constitution is not set out in a single document but drawn from conventions, customs and usages -- Great Britain being the classic example, with sources including the Magna Carta (1215), the Petition of Right (1628), the Bill of Rights (1689), the Reform Act (1832), the Parliamentary Act (1911), common law and case law, conventions, and judicial decisions. A flexible constitution can be amended by simple majority of parliament using the same procedure as ordinary laws (Great Britain, Ghana in the First Republic, Italy, New Zealand), and may or may not be written -- New Zealand showing that a constitution can be written and flexible at once; a rigid constitution requires a special and difficult procedure distinct from ordinary law-making (Australia, the USA, Canada, Nigeria), the Nigerian Constitution requiring a two-thirds majority of all members of the National Assembly plus approval by resolution of the Houses of Assembly of not less than two-thirds of the states. A unitary constitution makes the central government supreme over subordinate units which owe it their existence, with sovereignty exercised from one source only. A federal constitution distributes powers between central and component units; Kenneth Wheare (1963) defined federalism as an arrangement in which neither the central nor the regional governments are subordinate to each other but the two levels are coordinate and equal, and he held that component units must be fairly equal in size and population to prevent domination -- federalism encourages unity in diversity but its major disadvantage is that it is expensive to run because of the duplication of government departments. A confederal constitution is a union of sovereign states with a weak central authority, in which the states retain their separate identity and the right to secede and the coordinate states dominate the centre,

examples including the United States between 1776 and 1789, the United Netherlands (1579), and bodies such as the African Union, ECOWAS, the European Union and the Commonwealth of Nations.

Key facts to remember

- A. V. Dicey: a constitution is a document having a special legal sanctity. Austin Ranney: the whole body of fundamental rules, written or unwritten, legal and extra-legal, by which a government operates.
- Constitutionalism = the rule of law, government by limitations (procedural and substantive); W. G. Andrew: 'power is proscribed and procedure prescribed'. It is the antithesis of dictatorship.
- Written constitution = codified in one document (preamble = the spirit of the constitution). Unwritten = drawn from conventions/customs, e.g. Britain -- Magna Carta 1215, Petition of Right 1628, Bill of Rights 1689, Reform Act 1832, Parliamentary Act 1911.
- Flexible = amended by simple majority like ordinary law (Britain, Italy, New Zealand); rigid = special difficult procedure (USA, Canada, Australia, Nigeria). Nigeria: two-thirds of the National Assembly PLUS two-thirds of the state Houses of Assembly.
- Kenneth Wheare (1963): federalism = neither central nor regional government is subordinate; the two levels are coordinate and equal. His condition: component units fairly equal in size and population. Major disadvantage of federalism: expensive, due to duplication of departments.
- Confederal constitution = weak centre, strong coordinate states that keep their identity and the right to secede (USA 1776-1789; AU, ECOWAS, EU, Commonwealth). A constitution is also called the 'grund norm'.

How this shows up in CBT

Expect Dicey, Ranney, Andrew and Wheare matched to their exact formulation, written vs unwritten and flexible vs rigid distinguished with their country examples, and unitary vs federal vs confederal tested on where supreme power lies.

MODULE 2

Political Ideas and Concepts

Unit 1: The Origins and Theories of the State

The earliest form of the state was the city-state, an organised society living in what the Greeks called the 'polis', sharing three basic characteristics: small size, love of independence, and all-inclusiveness. Aristotle held that a city-state must be large enough to be economically viable or self-supporting, but not so large as to prevent unity or personal feelings among its members; the Vatican, seated in Rome, can be regarded as a contemporary city-state since it fulfils the features of modern sovereign states of the post-1648 Treaty of Westphalia. The modern state is a nation-state, larger than the city-state, in which citizens take their name from the country rather than the capital (Britons, not Londoners), where only indirect or representative democracy is possible because of size, and where social, economic and political challenges are more daunting. Nine theories explain the state's origin. The Natural Theory, following Aristotle, holds that humans are by nature social beings and that the state is the natural environment in which a man can be truly human, an individual outside the state being either 'a beast or a god'. The Force Theory holds that the state was created by conquest and the forceful subjugation of the weak by the strong; the Greek Sophist Thrasymachus observed that 'justice is the interest of the stronger', Machiavelli advised every prince to combine force with guile, and Mussolini and Hitler used the theory to convert Italy and Germany into a police and a totalitarian state, Mussolini's police state being the forerunner of Statism. The Divine Right of Kings Theory holds that the state is of supernatural authority created by God, who appointed some to rule on His behalf, so that disobeying them is direct opposition to God; as Appadorai explains, monarchy is a divinely ordained institution, kings are accountable only to God, and non-resistance and passive obedience are enjoined by God -- exemplified by the Tudors in Britain, the Hindu Maharajahs, the Egyptian kings reputed to be sons of Ra, and the Mikados of Japan, who claimed to be incarnations of the sun-God. The Social Contract Theory holds that government arose from a contract between rulers and ruled, individuals surrendering their right to rule themselves in return for security. In Hobbes's version, set out in *The Leviathan*, men in the state of nature lived a life that was 'poor, solitary, nasty, brutish and short', and surrendered all liberties to one man or an assembly to secure peace and order -- Hobbes writing in 17th century England to justify the restoration of the Stuart dynasty. The Marxian Theory traces the state from communalism, through feudalism with its lords and serfs, to capitalism, in which Marx and Engels declared that the executive of the modern state is 'a committee of the bourgeoisie', with a socialist state to follow before the state withers away. The Family Theory holds that the state grew from the family to the clan or kinship group, to the community, and finally the state. Sir Henry Maine's Patriarchal Theory traces it through the family under the supreme eldest male parent, which breaks up into many families forming the tribe, an aggregation of tribes making the state. The Evolutionary Theory sees the state as neither divine nor a deliberate human contrivance but a product of natural evolution; Edmund Burke believed it evolved out of a complex set of human needs and advised against tampering with existing institutions.

Key facts to remember

- 3 characteristics of the Greek city-state: small size, love of independence, all-inclusiveness. The Vatican is the contemporary example. In a nation-state only indirect/representative democracy is possible.
- Natural Theory (Aristotle): man is social by nature; an individual outside the state is 'a beast or a god'. Force Theory: Thrasymachus -- 'justice is the interest of the stronger'; Mussolini's police state is the forerunner of Statism.
- Divine Right (Appadorai): monarchy is divinely ordained, kings accountable only to God, non-resistance and passive obedience enjoined by God. The Mikados of Japan claimed to be incarnations of the sun-God.
- Hobbes (The Leviathan): the state of nature was 'poor, solitary, nasty, brutish and short'; men surrendered ALL liberties to one man. Written in 17th century England to justify restoring the Stuart dynasty.
- Marxian Theory sequence: communalism -> feudalism (lords/serfs) -> capitalism (bourgeoisie/proletariat) -> socialism, then the state withers away. Marx and Engels: the executive of the modern state is 'a committee of the bourgeoisie'.
- Sir Henry Maine (Patriarchal Theory): family under the eldest male parent -> tribe -> aggregation of tribes = the state. Evolutionary Theory: Edmund Burke warned against tampering with evolved institutions.

How this shows up in CBT

Expect each theory matched to its named theorist -- Aristotle, Thrasymachus, Appadorai, Hobbes, Marx, Maine, Burke -- and the Hobbesian state-of-nature phrase reproduced exactly.

Unit 2: The State and Nation: Characteristics and Functions

Harold Laski defined the state as a territorial society divided into government and subjects, claiming within its allotted physical area a supremacy over all other institutions; Max Weber defined it as a regime or supreme authority which gives orders to all and receives orders from all; Woodrow Wilson as a people organized for law within a political community; Northedge as a means by which people are organized for participation in the international system; and Karl Marx, adding the ideological dimension, as a committee for managing the affairs of the whole bourgeoisie. For any polity to be regarded as a state it must possess four fundamental elements: population, defined territory, government, and sovereignty. Since the state is an artificial person, it operates through an agent called the government, and the relationship between them is one of principal to agent: the state's life expectancy is permanency while the government's is ephemeral and changes hands periodically; the state's membership includes everyone and is compulsory while the government's covers only the few elected or employed and is optional; the state's existence is abstract while the government exists in

concrete terms; the state's powers are absolute while the government exercises delegated powers limited by the constitution; and states do not differ in nature, while governments come in different forms and types. On the functions of the state, Adam Smith laid down in *The Wealth of Nations* (1776) three duties the sovereign must attend to: protecting the society from violence and invasion by other independent societies; establishing an exact administration of justice; and erecting and maintaining certain public works and public institutions -- rendered in contemporary language as maintenance of internal law and order, defence of independence and territorial integrity, and efficient administration of justice with provision of public goods and infrastructure. Laski held that the state is an organization that enables the mass of men to realize social good on the largest possible scale. The concept of a nation, by contrast, is not political but sociological: a nation exists where there is a union of people based on similarities of language, ethnic relationship, or cultural heritage, and it can survive without a state -- the Jews maintained a national identity for thousands of years until Israel was created in 1948, and between 1797 and 1919 the Polish state ceased to exist while the Polish nation survived. One can belong to a state without belonging to its nation, and a nation can live across many states, as with the Hausa and Yoruba in West Africa. The state has a monopoly of coercive force which a nation lacks, and only states, not nations, are recognised and represented at the United Nations, African Union, IMF and Arab League. The nation-state is the principal form of modern political organization, and while a common language, religion and ethnic origin help to create one, they are not mandatory -- Switzerland has four official languages, Belgium two, and the United States is ethnically diverse yet remains a model nation-state.

Key facts to remember

- 4 fundamental elements of a state: population, defined territory, government, sovereignty. Laski: a state is 'a territorial society divided into government and subjects' claiming supremacy over all other institutions.
- State vs government: state = principal, permanent, abstract, compulsory membership, absolute powers; government = agent, ephemeral, concrete, optional membership, delegated powers limited by the constitution.
- Adam Smith (*The Wealth of Nations*, 1776), 3 duties of the sovereign: protection from violence/invasion; exact administration of justice; erecting and maintaining public works and institutions.
- A nation is a SOCIOLOGICAL, not a political, concept -- it can exist without a state (the Jews before 1948; the Polish nation survived 1797-1919 while the Polish state did not).
- Only states, not nations, are recognised and represented at the UN, African Union, IMF and Arab League; the state has a monopoly of coercive force, a nation does not.
- Common language/religion/ethnicity are NOT mandatory for a nation-state: Switzerland (4 official languages), Belgium (2), and the ethnically diverse USA are all nation-states.

How this shows up in CBT

Expect the 4 elements tested directly, the state-vs-government contrasts (permanent/ephemeral, compulsory/optional, absolute/delegated) matched, and Switzerland/Belgium/USA used to disprove the 'common language' precondition.

Unit 3: The Doctrine of Sovereignty and its Limitations

Derived from an old French philosophical concept, sovereignty simply means 'to rule over'; it has also been defined as absolute and perpetual power vested in a commonwealth, as independent rule by a country over a certain territory, and as political independence from any higher authority. Its indices are supremacy, independence, absoluteness, unlimitedness and perpetuity, and its characteristics are absoluteness, permanence, indivisibility, comprehensiveness, inalienability (its powers cannot be given away or transferred), and absence of foreign control. The French writer Jean Bodin (1530-96) introduced the theory of sovereignty into the study of political science, postulating that if the state is to live there must be in every organized community some definite authority not only itself obeyed but itself beyond the reach of authority; Harold Laski corroborated this, concluding that when we discover the authority which gives commands habitually obeyed but itself receives none, we have found the sovereign power. Among those who developed the theory, Hobbes held sovereignty to be absolute and located in the ruler; Locke did not use the term at all, and in so far as a supreme power existed in his state it lay with the people but was normally latent; Rousseau maintained sovereignty belonged to the people and could be exercised only in an assembly of the whole people, government being merely the executive agent of the general will. The common distinctions are between legal and political sovereignty on one hand and internal and external on the other, legal and political sovereignty both falling within internal sovereignty. John Austin is the foremost exponent of legal sovereignty, for whom the state is a legal order in which the sovereign is determinate and exercises ultimate power -- a view echoed in the British saying that the King or Queen can do no wrong; but since the legislature can amend the constitution only in accordance with that same constitution, legal sovereignty ultimately means the supremacy of the constitution. Political or popular sovereignty refers to the ultimate power of the people, who by majority will enthrone and remove governments; yet in practice the people's impact on law-making is minimal, which is why Laski dismissed as an abstraction attempts to equate popular sovereignty with public opinion, and why John Chipman Gray declared that the real rulers of society are undiscoverable -- so that while in theory the people are sovereign, in practice it is the constitution that is sovereign. External or territorial sovereignty is the central organizing principle of the international system, and Hugo Grotius is important for having emphasised it, that is, the independence of states from foreign control; the idea of the sovereign state in diplomatic history has its roots in the Treaty of Westphalia of 1648, signed after the Thirty Years War. Criticisms include Sir Henry Maine's point that sovereignty is inapplicable to undeveloped communities among whom custom is the king of men; the pluralist objection that the state is not the only association, since bodies like trade unions have wills and personalities of their own; the difficulty of locating a single sovereign in a federal state; and Laski's warning that the sovereign cannot tax private property without consent, since 'men will sooner part with their souls than with their possessions'. Sovereignty may be

limited by membership of international organisations, interference by dominant powers, external aid, the constitution, pressure groups, the intricacies of modern governance, customs and traditions, international law, the electorate, public opinion, and military interregnum.

Key facts to remember

- Jean Bodin (1530-96) INTRODUCED the theory of sovereignty into political science. Sovereignty derives from an old French concept meaning 'to rule over'.
- 6 characteristics of sovereignty: absoluteness, permanence, indivisibility, comprehensiveness, inalienability, absence of foreign control.
- John Austin = foremost exponent of LEGAL sovereignty (the sovereign is determinate); Hugo Grotius = emphasised EXTERNAL sovereignty (independence from foreign control).
- Hobbes: sovereignty is absolute and located in the ruler. Locke: never used the term; supreme power lay latent with the people. Rousseau: sovereignty belongs to the people, exercisable only in an assembly of the whole people.
- In theory the people are sovereign; in practice it is the constitution that is sovereign. Legal sovereignty ultimately means the supremacy of the constitution. John Chipman Gray: the real rulers of society are undiscoverable.
- The sovereign state dates from the Treaty of Westphalia (1648), after the Thirty Years War. Criticisms: Maine (custom is king among undeveloped communities), the pluralists, federalism, and Laski on private property.

How this shows up in CBT

Expect Bodin, Austin, Grotius, Hobbes, Locke and Rousseau matched to their exact position, legal vs political vs external sovereignty distinguished, and 1648 Westphalia tested directly.

Unit 4: Citizenship Rights, Duties, Obligations and Protections

Human rights are those privileges enjoyed by the citizens of a state, defined and enjoyed within the bounds of the law and, in modern democracies, spelt out in a written constitution and protected by government. Historically their origins are traced to the American Declaration of Independence of 1776, which proclaimed the right to life, liberty and the pursuit of happiness; the French Declaration of the Rights of Man of 1789; the European Convention of Human Rights; and the 1948 Universal Declaration of Rights. Their most influential exponent was John Locke, who held that obedience to government exists for one reason only -- to secure the personal rights to life, liberty and property that naturally belong to all men equally. In Nigeria, every constitution since the 1963 Republican Constitution has devoted a chapter exclusively to fundamental rights, and Chapter IV of the 1999 Constitution guarantees them in sections 33 to 43: the right to life (s.33), dignity of the human person (s.34), personal liberty (s.35), fair hearing (s.36), private and family life (s.37), freedom of thought,

conscience and religion (s.38), freedom of expression and the press (s.39), peaceful assembly and association (s.40), freedom of movement (s.41), freedom from discrimination (s.42), and the right to acquire and own immovable property anywhere in Nigeria (s.43). In the United States the First Amendment secures freedom of speech and peaceful assembly, the Fourth secures the citizen against his house being searched except upon a warrant, and the Eighth secures him against excessive bail; under the unwritten British Constitution there has been no general proclamation of rights, each important right having been achieved through a particular historical struggle. Rights are inalienable but not unqualified. Liberty does not mean freedom to do one's will -- that negative conception, which the rich prefer, suggests mere absence of restraint; liberty properly means the maintenance of equal opportunities for all citizens, and is therefore positive, so that compelling obedience to traffic regulations or forbidding murder does not make a man unfree. Freedom of speech is limited by the law of libel and slander. Johari classifies liberty into personal, political, economic, domestic, national and international types, and equality into natural, social, political, economic, legal and international types. The state must safeguard rights by preventing their unlawful invasion and ensuring that one citizen's right stops where another's begins, which requires the separation of powers, checks and balances, and an independent judiciary; a government that deprives citizens of these rights loses its legitimacy to remain in office, though A. V. Dicey warned that the more there is of law the less there is of rights. Rights are corollaries to duties: as Laski put it, there must be sufficiency for all before there is superfluity for some. Citizenship means membership of a given state, and a citizen is an individual with full political and legal rights; Aristotle defined citizenship as the right to rule and be ruled. Citizenship may be acquired by birth, place of birth, blood or descent, marriage, registration, naturalization, or conquest, Chapter III of the 1999 Constitution stipulating the ways for Nigeria. The duties citizens owe the state include obedience and unalloyed loyalty, encompassing respect for the national flag and anthem; payment of tax as and when due; obedience to traffic laws and highway codes; serving in the military if required during an emergency; and non-interference with other citizens' rights. Their obligations include exercising the right to vote at elections, resisting an unpopular government by constitutional means, obeying a good government, and assisting law enforcement agencies in the detection and prevention of crime.

Key facts to remember

- Origins of human rights: American Declaration of Independence 1776 (life, liberty, pursuit of happiness); French Declaration of the Rights of Man 1789; European Convention; 1948 Universal Declaration. John Locke was their most influential exponent.
- Chapter IV of Nigeria's 1999 Constitution guarantees fundamental rights in ss.33-43: s.33 life, s.34 dignity, s.35 personal liberty, s.36 fair hearing, s.39 expression and press, s.41 movement, s.42 freedom from discrimination. Chapter III covers citizenship.
- USA: 1st Amendment = speech and peaceful assembly; 4th = no search except upon warrant; 8th = no excessive bail. Britain has no general proclamation of rights -- each was won by a particular historical struggle.

- Liberty = the maintenance of equal opportunities for all citizens (positive), NOT mere absence of restraint (the negative conception the rich prefer). Freedom of speech is limited by the law of libel/slander.
- 7 ways of acquiring citizenship: birth, place of birth, blood/descent, marriage, registration, naturalization, conquest. Aristotle: citizenship = the right to rule and be ruled.
- Duties: loyalty to the state (flag and anthem), payment of tax, obedience to traffic laws, military service in emergency, non-interference with others' rights. Laski: 'there must be sufficiency for all before there is superfluity for some'.

How this shows up in CBT

Expect the section numbers of Chapter IV matched to their specific right, the US amendments matched to what each secures, the 7 routes to citizenship listed, and duties distinguished from obligations.

Unit 5: Power, Authority and Legitimacy and Related Concepts

Power is to politics what energy is to physics. In a socio-political context power is the ability of A to get B to do what B would ordinarily not have done, deriving from a gift, trust or goodwill, supernatural power, public office, or coercive superiority -- and its more precise meaning necessarily involves coercion, since power is the capacity to get others to do one's wishes with or without their consent. Max Weber defined power as the probability that one actor within a social relationship will be in a position to carry out his own will despite resistance, while political power is the capacity to affect another's behaviour by the threat of some form of sanction, whether negative or positive, in a carrot-and-stick approach; crucially, it is the fear of coercive penalties that provokes obedience, not the coercion itself, and too frequent use of penalties may indicate that political power is weakening. Power is a means to an end rather than an end in itself, and can serve both empowerment and domination -- hence Lord Acton's warning that power corrupts and absolute power corrupts absolutely. Power has three attributes: it is dynamic and never static; it has both objective aspects (assets a state actually possesses and can use) and subjective aspects (which depend on perception, where appearance may matter more than reality); and it is relative rather than absolute. The tangible elements of national power are military capabilities, economic strength, natural resources, population, and strategic location; the intangible or soft power elements are culture, the attraction of ideas, ideology and institutions. Authority is related to power but distinct in that it is based on rules: it is legitimate power, derived from accepted rules and exercised with the consent of the people, so that compliance is voluntary. Merely acknowledging another's power does not confer authority -- surrendering property to an armed robber acknowledges power but confers no legitimacy on it. Max Weber identified three sources of authority, not three kinds: traditional authority, deriving from long-standing traditions and the sanctity of usages, such as respect for a monarch, chief, Oba or Emir; legal-rational authority, legitimated by the supremacy of the law and derived from institutionalised

rules such as constitutions which confer and circumscribe the right to command; and charismatic authority, deriving from persons of exceptional qualities such as heroism, oratory, intelligence, or the power of healing or prophecy, exemplified by Mahatma Gandhi, John Kennedy, Obafemi Awolowo, Ahmadu Bello and Murtala Muhammed. Legitimacy comes from the Latin 'legitimus', meaning lawful or according to law, and has two interpretations: empirically it concerns citizens' perception of how a state or government came to exist as a legal entity, and normatively whether it deserves to be obeyed. Influence is the ability to intrude into other people's decision-making process and can be exercised without power, though it may acquire the intensity of power; following Dahl it takes two forms -- manifest influence, where B anticipates A's wants and acts to bring about the outcome A desires, and implicit influence, where A's mere desire for an outcome causes B to act without A intending it. Relationships of influence are achieved through trained control and through persuasion, which may be rational (borne of truthful information), manipulative (achieved through half-truths and falsehood), or by inducement (the offer of reward to prevent anticipated action). Related concepts in the unit include development as a many-sided process of economic and social transformation; underdevelopment, indicated by poor infrastructure, low per capita income, low literacy and high mortality; the rule of law, anchored on four factors (no one is above the law; no one may be punished except for a breach of the law; no one may be convicted except in the manner the law sets out; everyone is equal before the law); ideology, from the French 'les ideologues' propounded by Antoine Destutt de Tracy during the French Revolution of 1789; society; and conflict, which Lewis Coser (1956) defined as a struggle over values and claims to scarce status, power and resources in which the aims of the opponents are to neutralise, injure or eliminate their rivals.

Key facts to remember

- Max Weber: power = the probability that an actor will carry out his own will despite resistance. It is the FEAR of coercive penalties that provokes obedience, not the coercion itself.
- 3 attributes of power: dynamic, objective/subjective, relative. Tangible elements of national power: military capability, economic strength, natural resources, population, strategic location. Intangible (soft) elements: culture, attraction of ideas, ideology, institutions.
- Authority = legitimate power derived from accepted rules and exercised with consent; acknowledging power (e.g. surrendering to an armed robber) does NOT confer authority.
- Weber's 3 SOURCES of authority: traditional (customs, usages, inherited status); legal-rational (supremacy of law, institutionalised rules e.g. a constitution); charismatic (exceptional personal qualities -- Gandhi, Kennedy, Awolowo, Ahmadu Bello, Murtala Muhammed).
- Legitimacy from Latin 'legitimus' (lawful). Empirical sense = how citizens perceive the government came to exist; normative sense = whether it deserves to be obeyed.
- Influence = the ability to intrude into another's decision-making; can exist WITHOUT power. Dahl: manifest influence (B anticipates A's wants) vs implicit influence. Means: trained control, rational persuasion, manipulative persuasion, inducement.

How this shows up in CBT

Expect power vs authority vs influence distinguished directly, Weber's 3 authority sources matched to their basis, tangible sorted from intangible power elements, and the rule-of-law and Coser definitions tested verbatim.

MODULE 3

Forms of Government and Electoral Systems

Unit 1: Major Forms of Government

Monarchy is the first and earliest form of government -- a system headed by a King, Queen, or Emperor, in which the majesty and sovereignty of the state is personified in a single individual. Broadly there are two types of monarchy, hereditary and elective, with hereditary being the normal type. An absolute monarchy exists where no established constitutional authority checks the king's power and he rules as both head of state and head of government (Saudi Arabia); a constitutional monarchy has its power regulated by the constitution, with the monarch assenting only to laws passed by the elected parliament (Britain). In pre-colonial Nigeria the Alaafin of Oyo and the Sultan of Sokoto were regarded as personifications of the state. Aristocracy is government led by the 'best citizens', where the quality marking out the aristocrat is virtue -- moral and intellectual superiority. Theocracy literally means 'the rule of God'; the term was invented by Josephus (AD 38-c.100) to describe the ancient Hebrew constitution and the role of Mosaic Law, and it denotes government by divine guidance or by officials regarded as divinely guided, with the legal system based on religious law -- the Vatican City under the Pope, Saudi Arabia, and Iran are cited examples, and the era of Enlightenment is said to have marked the end of theocracy. Robert C. Fried (1966) distinguished totalitarianism from dictatorship: both feature complete control over government and complete autonomy from outside, but only totalitarianism adds total control of social life, an official ideology all members must adhere to, a terroristic police control system, and central direction of the entire economy -- so that no distinction remains between state and society.

Key facts to remember

- Monarchy = earliest form of government, headed by a King/Queen/Emperor personifying the state's sovereignty.
- 2 broad types of monarchy: hereditary (the normal type) and elective. Absolute monarchy (Saudi Arabia) = no constitutional check on the king; constitutional monarchy (Britain) = power regulated by the constitution.
- Aristocracy = government by the 'best citizens'; the aristocrat's defining quality is virtue (moral and intellectual superiority).
- Theocracy = 'the rule of God'; term invented by Josephus to describe the ancient Hebrew constitution and Mosaic Law. Examples: Vatican City (headed by the Pope), Saudi Arabia, Iran.
- Robert C. Fried (1966): totalitarianism and dictatorship both have complete control of government and autonomy from outside, but ONLY totalitarianism has total control of social life.
- Totalitarianism also implies an official ideology, terroristic police control, and central control of the entire economy -- no distinction between state and society.

How this shows up in CBT

Expect absolute vs constitutional monarchy distinguished directly, Josephus credited with coining 'theocracy', and Fried's totalitarianism-vs-dictatorship difference (control of social life) tested.

Unit 2: Democracy as a Form of Government

The term democracy comes from the Greek word for 'rule of the people', originating in the Greek city-states, where the idea rested on the full participation of all people in every aspect of government -- the model of 'pure' or consensus democracy, which did not last long in Greece itself. For Emile Durkheim, the basic hallmark of democracy is the citizens' capacity to participate in the state's judgment, with the state's legitimacy springing from its collective conscience, so that a viable democracy requires a vibrant public sphere. Abraham Lincoln's popular definition implies that all citizens participate in government, but this is no longer possible in the modern world because of the size of sovereign states -- hence the necessity for indirect or representative democracy, in which individuals acquire and retain the power to rule through a competitive struggle for the people's vote. The key words of democratic governance are participation, transparency, and accountability; the Rule of Law (Dicey) is a cardinal element, alongside equality before the law, impartial justice, periodic elections, and the possibility of an alternative government. Samuel P. Huntington (1991) argued that democracy has advanced in waves since the early nineteenth century, each wave followed by partial reversals, with the third and current wave commencing in the mid-1970s. Political parties, despite their weaknesses, are indispensable to democracy and are regarded as its fulcrum. Democracy has nonetheless been criticised: Joseph Schumpeter argued liberty and equality are not truly part of democracy since the franchise is often qualified in ways that exclude significant sections of the population; elite theorists Mosca and Pareto stressed the persistent distinction between the rulers and the ruled; and Lucien Pye noted that in developing societies democracy has been wrongly associated with inefficiency while authoritarianism is identified with purposeful action -- a rationale African leaders used in the first decade of independence to justify one-party 'democracy', which was in reality a euphemism for dictatorship. Obafemi Awolowo (1981) nonetheless insisted there is no substitute for democracy as a form of government.

Key facts to remember

- Democracy = Greek for 'rule of the people'; the Greek city-state model is 'pure'/consensus democracy based on full direct participation.
- Emile Durkheim: the hallmark of democracy is citizens' capacity to participate in the state's judgment; legitimacy springs from the collective conscience.
- Direct democracy is impracticable today because of the size of modern states -- hence representative/indirect democracy.
- Key words of democratic governance: participation, transparency, accountability. Rule of law (Dicey) is a cardinal element.

- Samuel P. Huntington (1991): democracy has advanced in waves since the early 19th century; the third (current) wave began in the mid-1970s.
- Criticisms: Schumpeter (franchise is qualified, excludes sections of the population); Mosca and Pareto (elite theory -- rulers vs ruled); Lucien Pye (democracy wrongly linked with inefficiency in developing societies).

How this shows up in CBT

Expect Durkheim, Huntington, Schumpeter, and Mosca/Pareto matched to their specific claim about democracy, and the reason direct democracy is impracticable today tested directly.

Unit 3: Electoral System and Process

An electoral system is the process or machinery through which citizens in a democratic state elect their representatives in competitive elections held at periodic intervals; while the casting of votes is the highest point of the process, many other activities are involved before it is complete. J. J. Rousseau, who popularised the doctrine of the 'general will', preferred direct democracy on the grounds that an individual's will is inalienable and cannot be transferred or adequately represented by another -- but modern liberal democracy instead rests on the pillars of representative government, universal suffrage, and unrestricted franchise. Under the majority rule system, practised in Nigeria, the party or candidate with the majority of votes cast is declared winner; its major disadvantage is that a party may win a minority of votes yet command a majority of seats in parliament and form the government, and it may encourage fragmentation of parties along regional or ethnic lines. Under proportional representation, elections are not decided at constituency level -- the whole country is treated as a single constituency, parties present candidates on lists, and each party is allotted seats corresponding to its percentage of the national vote, so that government is usually by a coalition of several parties. The criteria of representation may be population, territorial, or functional, used selectively or in combination; Nigeria and the USA both use population and territorial criteria for their two legislative chambers. Robert Dahl identified three conditions essential to a credible election: meaningful and extensive competition among individuals and groups for public positions; a highly inclusive level of political participation through regular, free and fair elections excluding no significant group of adults; and civil and political liberties sufficient to ensure the integrity of competition and participation. Other prerequisites include periodic voter registration, nomination of candidates through party primaries or conventions, a politically neutral and financially independent electoral umpire, fair boundary delimitation, equal media access, one-man-one-vote with secret balloting, counting and collation in the full glare of the public before party agents, legal redress through election tribunals, and the power of recall. Elections in Nigeria began in 1923 following the Clifford Constitution of 1922, on a restricted franchise of 100 pounds per annum (reduced to 50 pounds in 1946); the Macpherson Constitution of 1951 introduced party politics, producing the Action Group (Awolowo, West), the Northern Peoples' Congress (Ahmadu Bello, North), and the NCNC

(East). The electoral body has been renamed repeatedly: the Electoral Commission of Nigeria (ECN) conducted the 1959 pre-independence elections; it became the Federal Electoral Commission (FEC) in the First Republic; FEDECO was established in 1978 for the 1979 elections and disbanded in 1983; NEC was established in 1987 under Babangida, headed first by Professor Eme Awa and later Professor Humphrey Nwosu; NECON followed under Abacha in 1993; and the Independent National Electoral Commission (INEC) was created by General Abdusalami Abubakar via Decree No. 17 of 1998, conducting the elections that ushered in the Fourth Republic in 1999.

Key facts to remember

- An electoral system = the machinery through which citizens elect representatives in competitive elections at periodic intervals.
- Majority rule system (used in Nigeria): candidate with the majority of votes wins; key flaw -- a party can win a minority of votes yet a majority of seats.
- Proportional representation: the whole country is treated as ONE constituency, parties present lists, seats are allotted by percentage of national votes -- usually producing coalition government.
- Robert Dahl's 3 conditions for a credible election: meaningful competition; highly inclusive participation via regular free/fair elections; sufficient civil and political liberties.
- Nigerian elections began in 1923 under the Clifford Constitution of 1922 (franchise: 100 pounds per annum); the Macpherson Constitution of 1951 introduced party politics (AG, NPC, NCNC).
- Electoral body sequence: ECN -> FEC -> FEDECO (1978) -> NEC (1987) -> NECON (1993) -> INEC (Decree No. 17 of 1998, under Abdusalami Abubakar).

How this shows up in CBT

Expect majority rule vs proportional representation distinguished directly, Dahl's 3 conditions tested, and the ECN-to-INEC naming sequence with its dates matched to the correct regime.

Unit 4: Electoral Reforms and Democratic Sustainability

The problems confronting elections in Nigeria have been linked both to the behavioural and attitudinal dispositions of the political elite (Almond) and to the institutions responsible for conducting elections -- electoral commissions have historically been tied to the apron strings of incumbent executives, lacking independence, transparency, and accountability. On 28 August 2007, President Umaru Musa Yar'Adua, acknowledging the flawed nature of the election that brought him into office, announced an electoral reform panel headed by former Chief Justice of Nigeria Muhammed Uwais. Reviewing 85 years of elections since 1922, the committee observed a progressive degeneration of outcomes, with the 2007 election believed to be the worst, and concluded that the lack of independence of electoral commissions at both federal and state levels is a key deficiency of the electoral process. The committee drafted three bills: an Act to amend the 1999

Constitution, an Act to amend the 2006 Electoral Act, and an Act to establish an Electoral Offences Commission. Its main recommendations were: a genuinely independent INEC, with its expenditure made a first charge on the Consolidated Revenue Fund of the Federation and its membership nominated through the National Judicial Council, the National Council of State, and Senate confirmation; the splitting of INEC into a policy board and a professional/technical election management agency; the unbundling of INEC through three new agencies -- the Political Parties Registration Council, the Electoral Offences Commission, and the Constituency Delimitation Commission -- plus a Centre for Democratic Studies for civic education; the scrapping of State Independent Electoral Commissions into a single national election management body; the gradual introduction of electronic voting machines after limited testing; accreditation of party agents 14 days before the election rather than on election day; the introduction of independent candidacy; continued government funding of political parties based on electoral performance; a mixed electoral system combining first-past-the-post with modified proportional representation (the 360 House of Representatives constituencies by first-past-the-post, the 108 Senate seats mixed); the disposal of all election petitions before swearing-in, within a six-month time limit; and the rejection of zero-sum, winner-takes-all politics, with parties winning at least 2.5 per cent of National Assembly seats qualifying for cabinet appointments. A good electoral system balances the politics of participation with the politics of representation, vests legitimacy on decision makers, and builds a sustainable political culture -- no country, including the advanced democracies, has devised a perfect system, but those democracies have subjected their procedures to uninterrupted practice over time.

Key facts to remember

- The Uwais Panel on electoral reform was set up by President Umaru Musa Yar'Adua on 28 August 2007, headed by former Chief Justice Muhammed Uwais.
- The panel reviewed 85 years of elections since 1922 and found the lack of independence of electoral commissions to be the key deficiency; the 2007 election was judged the worst.
- 'Unbundling' INEC: 3 new agencies recommended -- Political Parties Registration Council, Electoral Offences Commission, Constituency Delimitation Commission (plus a Centre for Democratic Studies).
- INEC funding recommended as a first charge on the Consolidated Revenue Fund; State Independent Electoral Commissions (SIECs) to be scrapped into a single national body.
- Mixed electoral system recommended: first-past-the-post plus modified proportional representation (360 House of Reps seats by first-past-the-post; 108 Senate seats mixed).
- Other key recommendations: independent candidacy, party agents accredited 14 days before the election, all election petitions disposed of before swearing-in within 6 months, and parties with at least 2.5% of National Assembly seats qualifying for cabinet appointments.

How this shows up in CBT

Expect the Uwais Panel's date, chairman, and appointing president tested directly, and the three 'unbundling' agencies plus the specific numeric recommendations (14 days, 6 months, 2.5%, 360/108) matched precisely.

MODULE 4

Political Systems and Party Systems

Unit 1: Major Components of a Political System

In any political system there are basic components that must work in a state of harmony before the system can be said to be stable or in a state of equilibrium, and it is possible to disaggregate a political system into these components in order to identify which one is malfunctioning. The checklist of the main elements most commonly studied comprises political institutions, elites, masses and political culture, together with political linkage. Political institutions -- constitutions, parliaments, courts, bureaucracies and executive structures -- are perhaps the most important and visible foundations of the political system, serving as the focal points for deciding 'who gets what, when and how' and as the arena of the political process. One of the most significant contributions of the Behavioural Revolution was to stress the importance of the human element over and above institutions, systems and structures, since no political structure can endure in the absence of corresponding values; the contrast between Nigeria's parliamentary First Republic and presidential Second Republic shows that explanations for the success and failure of political systems are located beyond a system or its structure. Elites dominate the formal institutions of government and get most of what is available to be shared; Geraint Parry, in *Political Elites*, describes them as the decision makers of society whose power is not subject to control by any other body, the small minority who play an exceptionally influential part in political and social affairs. Elites may be divided into governed and non-governed elites, and elite theory assumes that in every society a minority takes the major decisions, that elites include those who occupy political power or seek to influence government decisions, and that there is a circulation of elites. Robert Michels in 1942 formulated the famous 'Iron Law of Oligarchy': 'He who says organization says Oligarchy'. Elite theorists explain the stability of the American and British systems by the high level of consensus among elites as to the rules of the game, and attribute the chaos in third world politics to the lack of such consensus. The masses are the ordinary citizens whose influence upon policy is usually indirect and difficult to measure; the more deeply the masses are committed to the political system, the more stable a regime is likely to be. The overall assessment of how the masses perceive and evaluate the political system is called political culture, and the process by which individuals acquire it is political socialization. Allan Ball defines political culture as the attitudes, beliefs, emotions and values of society relating to the political system and to political issues -- the study of a people's orientation to politics as distinct from actual political behaviour; its two critical components are the attitude to political institutions and the degree to which citizens feel they can influence decision making, the latter called political efficacy. In a parochial political culture citizens are dimly aware of the existence of a central government; in a subject political culture they see themselves as subjects rather than participants; in a participant political culture they are keenly involved. The 'civic culture' is the type most likely to ensure political stability. Political linkage refers to the mechanisms binding masses and elites -- political parties and pressure groups such as labour unions and professional organizations, with kinship and religious networks serving this role in less

developed societies, alongside public opinion. The stability of every political system depends on the components fitting together so that the system performs its four main functions of goal attainment, pattern maintenance, adaptation and integration.

Key facts to remember

- The main components of a political system: political institutions, elites, masses, political culture, and political linkage.
- Geraint Parry (Political Elites): elites are the decision makers of society whose power is not subject to control by any other body. Robert Michels (1942), Iron Law of Oligarchy: 'He who says organization says Oligarchy'.
- The Behavioural Revolution stressed the human element over institutions -- no political structure can endure in the absence of corresponding values.
- Allan Ball: political culture = the attitudes, beliefs, emotions and values of society relating to the political system. Political socialization = the process of acquiring it. Political efficacy = how far citizens feel they can influence decision making.
- 3 types of political culture: parochial (dimly aware of central government), subject (subjects, not participants), participant (keenly involved). The 'civic culture' best ensures stability.
- Linkage mechanisms: political parties and pressure groups (kinship/religious networks in less developed societies). 4 functions of a political system: goal attainment, pattern maintenance, adaptation, integration.

How this shows up in CBT

Expect Parry and Michels matched to their exact formulation, the 3 political cultures distinguished, political culture separated from socialization and efficacy, and the 4 system functions listed.

Unit 2: The Meaning and Nature of Political Parties

Edmund Burke defined a political party as a body of men united for promoting by their joint endeavours the national interest upon some political principle in which they are agreed. Joseph Schlesinger saw parties as political organizations which actively and effectively engage in competition for elective office; Joseph La Palombara defined a party as a formal organization whose self-conscious primary purpose is to place and maintain in public office persons who will control, alone or in coalition, the machinery of government; and Joseph Schumpeter held that the first and foremost aim of each political party is to prevail over the others in order to get into power or to stay in it. Parties resemble interest groups in seeking influence over government, but are distinguished by their primary political orientation: interest groups are benefit seekers, while political parties are office-seekers. On organization, most parties prefer a presence in every part of a country, since the more widespread the support base the better the prospects of winning; in Nigeria from 1979 until

liberalization under the Obasanjo civilian administration, parties were required to have membership and offices in at least two thirds of the states before qualifying for registration, and since the Babangida transition programme the ward level has been the centrepiece of political activities, so that a presidential aspirant's ambition may be truncated if he cannot be selected as a delegate from his own ward. A party system is a network of relationships through which parties interact and influence the political process, and the most popular way of distinguishing types is by the number of parties competing for power; the French political scientist Maurice Duverger, in *Political Parties*, classified them into single or one-party, two-party, and multiple party systems. A one-party system legally recognises only one party, a common feature of communist and socialist countries such as North Korea and Cuba, and of post-independence Africa -- Ghana under Nkrumah with the Convention Peoples Party, and Tanzania under Nyerere with TANU. Its claimed advantages are the prevention of economic waste, the promotion of national unity, stability, prompt decision-making and the absence of political vendetta; its greatest drawback is that it may develop into a dictatorship, with individual rights trampled upon, as under Stalin, in the 1989 Tiananmen Square massacre, and through Nkrumah's Preventive Detention Act. A two-party system operates where only two parties have reasonable chances of winning elections, though other parties exist -- the Democratic and Republican Parties in the United States and the Conservative and Labour Parties in Britain, both products of historical evolution, whereas Babangida's decreeing into existence of the Social Democratic Party and the Republican Convention in Nigeria's Third Republic was a clear aberration. Its greatest advantage is that it promotes political stability by providing for the possibility of alternative governments, with a stronger opposition acting as a corrective; its disadvantages are that it may divide a country into two opposing factions polarized along religious and ethnic lines, and may lead to a one-party state. A multi-party system exists where several parties each have a reasonable chance of winning legislative seats, as in Germany, France and Italy; it allows free choice, prevents dictatorship and gives wider representation, but offers voters too many programmes, is expensive to manage, and makes government formation difficult, since a coalition assuming office lacks a common policy or platform and is forced into unhealthy compromises and horse-trading in which vital principles are abandoned. The zero-party option was offered by General Murtala Muhammed to the Constitution Drafting Committee in 1975, but the CDC dismissed it, holding that a no-party system combined with representative government would amount to a syndicalist or corporatist system likely to lead ultimately to fascism. The functions of political parties are popular participation, representation (Giovanni Sartori called parties the central intermediate and intermediary structures between society and government), elite formation and leadership recruitment, interest articulation and aggregation, socialization and mobilization, organization of government, and providing an avenue for criticism of government policies.

Key facts to remember

- Edmund Burke: a party is 'a body of men united for promoting by their joint endeavours the national interest upon some political principle in which they are agreed'. Schumpeter: its first aim is to prevail over others to get into power or stay in it.
- Interest groups are BENEFIT seekers; political parties are OFFICE seekers.

- Maurice Duverger (Political Parties) classified party systems into three: one-party, two-party, multiple party.
- One-party: only one legal party (North Korea, Cuba; Ghana's CPP under Nkrumah, Tanzania's TANU under Nyerere). Greatest drawback: it may develop into a dictatorship.
- Two-party (USA: Democratic/Republican; Britain: Conservative/Labour) -- products of historical evolution. Babangida's decreed SDP and Republican Convention was 'a clear aberration'. Greatest advantage: political stability through the possibility of alternative governments.
- The zero-party option was offered by General Murtala Muhammed to the Constitution Drafting Committee in 1975 and rejected as leading to a syndicalist/corporativist and ultimately fascist system. Giovanni Sartori: parties are the central intermediary structures between society and government.

How this shows up in CBT

Expect Burke, Schumpeter, Duverger and Sartori matched to their exact statement, one-party vs two-party vs multi-party matched to their defining feature, examples and chief advantage/drawback, and the Nigerian registration and zero-party facts tested directly.

Unit 3: Pressure and Interest Groups

Pressure groups are organized bodies which seek to influence the context of government decisions, either to prevent government from initiating policies unfavourable to their members or to influence it to fashion policies in their members' best interest. The terms interest group and pressure group are used interchangeably and convey virtually the same meaning, but the emphasis differs: in the former it is on why a set of individuals aggregate in pursuit of a common goal, while in the latter what is salient is the method they employ, usually by exerting pressure on agencies of government. A pressure group does not present itself as a potential replacement for the existing government; it usually only seeks to pressurize government into taking a desired line of action, though a frustrated but powerful group may openly support an opposition. The more active a government is, the greater the probability that more pressure groups will be formed around its activities. Their functions include promoting discussion and debate and mobilizing and educating public opinion, in which the Nigeria Labour Congress, the Nigerian Bar Association and the Nigerian Medical Association have played prominent roles; enhancing democratic participation by articulating issues political parties may not want to touch; providing an access point for redress of grievances and a platform for marginalized minorities, as the Movement for the Survival of Ogoni People has done in the Niger Delta agitations over environmental pollution and fiscal federalism; serving as a valuable source of specialized information and expertise for a legislature and bureaucracy overburdened by routine, as Chambers of Commerce do during budget preparation and public hearings; and pushing for policy changes or reversals. Pressure groups may be classified in two broad ways. By the objectives they pursue they fall into three categories: economic and business groups such as the Nigerian Chamber of Commerce,

NECA and NACCIMA, together with the Nigeria Labour Congress as a trade union concerned with wages and working conditions; professional groups such as the NMA, NBA and the Nigerian Union of Teachers; and religious groups such as the Supreme Council of Islamic Affairs and the Christian Association of Nigeria. By their nature, character or life span they fall into four types: communal groups, socio-cultural associations whose membership is based on birth rather than recruitment, such as the Arewa People's Congress, the Odua People's Congress and Ohaneze Ndigbo; institutional groups, which are part of the machinery of government and exert influence from within while enjoying no autonomy, such as civil servants and military officers; associational groups, formed voluntarily by people pursuing shared but limited goals, of which interest groups are the most obvious examples; and anomic groups, which emerge spontaneously in response to an issue and disperse once the objective is achieved, such as the Campaign for Democracy and the National Democratic Coalition, which stood against the annulment of the June 12, 1993 election. Several techniques are open to them, of which lobbying of policy makers is the most popular and effective, alongside mobilization of members, publicity and propaganda in the mass media, and attempts to influence elections by appearing before party committees at conventions, making monetary contributions to candidates, or offering propaganda services. Since resources are limited relative to competing ends, government must rank interests, and pressure groups position themselves to influence policy at the stages Adebayo identifies -- problem identification, clarification of goals, outlining available choices, weighing probable costs and benefits, and final selection. Although pressure groups have much in common with political parties, the major difference is that pressure groups are not in contest for political power: parties seek to create change by being elected to public office, while pressure groups attempt to influence public policy, and pressure groups are better able to focus on specialized issues whereas parties address a wide range of issues.

Key facts to remember

- A pressure group influences the context of government decisions but does NOT present itself as a potential replacement for the existing government.
- Interest group vs pressure group (Olaniyi): the former emphasises WHY individuals aggregate; the latter emphasises the METHOD -- exerting pressure on agencies of government.
- Classification by objective (3): economic/business (Chamber of Commerce, NECA, NACCIMA, NLC), professional (NMA, NBA, NUT), religious (SCIA, CAN).
- Classification by nature (4): communal (membership by BIRTH -- APC, OPC, Ohaneze Ndigbo); institutional (part of the machinery of government, no autonomy -- civil servants, military officers); associational (voluntary, limited shared goals); anomic (spontaneous, disperse after the objective -- Campaign for Democracy, NADECO over the June 12, 1993 annulment).
- Lobbying of policy makers is the most popular and effective technique. Chandler and Plane: public policy = 'the strategic use of resources to alleviate national problems'.
- Major difference from parties: pressure groups are NOT in contest for political power. Parties seek change by winning office and address a wide range of issues; pressure groups influence policy and focus on specialized issues.

How this shows up in CBT

Expect the four types (communal, institutional, associational, anomic) matched to their defining feature and Nigerian example, lobbying identified as the chief technique, and the pressure-group-vs-party distinction tested directly.

Unit 4: The British Political System

The British constitution is described as unwritten, which does not mean no part of it is written down -- the Magna Carta of 1215 and the Petition of Rights of 1628 are written enactments -- but that at no time did the English people, like the Americans at Philadelphia, assemble to draft a constitution, so that it is not codified in a single document; its other sources include statutes, judicial decisions, conventions and usages. It is also described as flexible because of the simple and non-complicated process of amending it. A key distinction is that laws, by their statutory nature, are enforceable in courts of law, while conventions are not, yet it is rarely in the British character to violate them. Well-known conventions include that the Prime Minister is first among equals in the cabinet and is the leader of the party having a majority in the House of Commons; that ministers with cabinet rank are selected from the majority party and must sit in either House; that a government defeated on a major issue must resign; that a government resigns if defeated at a general election; that Parliament stands dissolved on the request of the Prime Minister; that the Prime Minister and cabinet resign if a vote of no confidence is passed; and the principle of collective responsibility, by which the Prime Minister and ministers are collectively responsible to Parliament and share the blame or glory for any decision. Britain operates a unitary system in which all governmental powers are concentrated at the central level, local government being created and allocated powers by the centre. The Prime Minister is head of government and the country's political leader, with wide powers of patronage -- Harold Macmillan dismissed a third of his cabinet overnight in 1962 -- appointing, promoting, demoting and dismissing ministers, assigning portfolios, choosing the cabinet and determining its size, summoning meetings and setting the agenda, leading the party and Parliament, and personally advising the monarch on the date of dissolution of Parliament, a matter not discussed in Cabinet. The parliamentary system, first developed in Britain, is a system of dual executive with a division between the head of state (the Monarch) and the head of government (the Prime Minister), Parliament being the supreme legislative body. Membership of Parliament is a precondition for cabinet appointment, which leaves no room for separation of powers as in the United States and produces instead a fusion of powers. Parliament is bicameral, the House of Commons being the lower and elected chamber and the House of Lords the upper and selected chamber, with elections held every five years or earlier. There is an official and legally recognised opposition: the party with the second highest vote forms the shadow cabinet, which offers better alternatives and constructive criticism. Party discipline is enforced by the party whip, and while all cabinet members are Ministers, not all Ministers are cabinet members. Writing in 1867 in *The English Constitution*, Walter Bagehot declared the two characteristic features of Cabinet Government to be that the cabinet is a collective executive body and that it is drawn from Parliament

and answerable to Parliament rather than directly to the electorate -- in direct contrast with the American presidential system. The Prime Minister's traditional role is described as 'primus inter pares', though it is widely claimed today that he is more than first among equals. The cabinet draws up policy, decides when items go to Parliament, determines policies in response to current challenges, coordinates policy and supervises the executive; posts such as Foreign Secretary, Home Secretary and Chancellor of the Exchequer feature in any conventional cabinet, while posts like Lord Privy Seal and Lord President of the Council allow non-departmental functions. The monarchy is a hereditary institution regulated by Parliament through the rules of succession, the Act of Settlement of 1701 and the Statute of Westminster of 1931 being the major governing laws; it is the symbol of the continuity of British government and an integral part of Parliament, the sovereign being answerable to no court in Britain and not liable to arrest, with powers including giving assent to bills and the enforcement of national laws.

Key facts to remember

- 'Unwritten' means the English never assembled, like the Americans at Philadelphia, to draft a constitution -- it is uncoded, not wholly unwritten (Magna Carta 1215, Petition of Rights 1628 are written). It is also flexible.
- Laws are enforceable in courts; CONVENTIONS ARE NOT. Key conventions: a government defeated on a major issue must resign; Parliament dissolves on the PM's request; collective responsibility of PM and ministers to Parliament.
- Britain is UNITARY -- all powers concentrated centrally, local government created by the centre. The system is a DUAL EXECUTIVE: Monarch = head of state, Prime Minister = head of government.
- Membership of Parliament is a precondition for cabinet appointment, so there is FUSION of powers, not separation. Commons = elected (lower); Lords = selected (upper). Elections every five years or earlier.
- Walter Bagehot (The English Constitution, 1867): the cabinet is a collective executive body, drawn from and answerable to Parliament rather than directly to the electorate. The PM is 'primus inter pares'.
- The party with the second highest vote forms the SHADOW CABINET. The party whip enforces discipline. All cabinet members are Ministers, but not all Ministers are cabinet members. The Act of Settlement 1701 and Statute of Westminster 1931 govern the monarchy.

How this shows up in CBT

Expect the meaning of 'unwritten' tested precisely, laws vs conventions distinguished, fusion vs separation of powers contrasted with the USA, and Bagehot, Macmillan (1962) and the 1701/1931 statutes matched correctly.

Unit 5: The American Political System

The United States, variously described as the New World, God's Own Country, the Promised Land and a melting pot, is a former colony of Great Britain which fought its war of liberation in 1776; a committee appointed by the Second Continental Congress and headed by Thomas Jefferson drafted the Declaration of Independence, which philosophically proclaimed that all men were created equal and that certain rights -- life, liberty and the pursuit of happiness -- are inalienable and could not be abridged by government, a remarkable statement at a time when most Kings in Europe were claiming divine right to rule. The War of Independence was led by George Washington, who later became the first President. The thirteen former colonies became the pioneer confederal states, and the Articles of Confederation and Perpetual Union was adopted in November 1777 and operated until March 1789. Article II provided that each state retains its sovereignty and independence and every power not expressly delegated to the United States in Congress assembled, so the Articles were concerned primarily with limiting the powers of the central government: the central government was based entirely on the Congress; there was no Executive branch; execution of laws was left to the discretion of individual states; members of Congress were no more than delegates recallable at will; Congress lacked the power to levy tax; and although it could declare war there was no central army, only state militia. As a voluntary compact of sovereign states in which the central government lacked legal authority to enforce compliance, and compounded by a lack of trust among the states, the arrangement was doomed to fail. The founding fathers therefore convened a Constitutional Convention at Philadelphia, where the debate centred on reconciling the Virginia Plan, which provided for representation in the national legislature based on population or revenue contribution, and the New Jersey Plan, which concentrated on specific weaknesses in the Articles in the spirit of revision. The outcome was the Connecticut Compromise, or Great Compromise, by which the 1787 Conference gave each state an equal number of senators regardless of population but allocated representation in the lower house on the basis of population; federalism was adopted as a step towards greater centralization, devising a system of dual sovereigns -- the state and the nation -- in the hope that competition between the two would limit the power of both. Article II established a strong executive President, which Alexander Hamilton described as aimed towards 'energy in the Executive', the President exercising executive powers as Head of State, Head of Government and Commander-in-Chief of the Armed Forces. The constitution incorporates separation of powers, which Richard Neustadt described as a system not of separated powers but of 'separated institutions sharing power', dividing Congress into two bodies -- the Senate elected for six-year terms with partial renewal after two years, and the House biennially -- and vesting legislative, executive and judicial functions in separate organs so as to diminish the chance that power will be misused. Checks and balances is the mechanism by which each branch participates in and influences the activities of the others, its major examples being the President's power to veto Congressional legislation, the Senate's power to confirm presidential appointments, and the Judiciary's power to review laws enacted by Congress. The national legislature is bicameral, the Senate having 100 members elected on the basis of equality of states and the House elected on the basis of population. Judicial review is the power of the court to render legislative and executive acts null and void if they violate the constitution, and under the Supremacy Clause the Supreme Court may declare a state's legislation inconsistent with federal law

null and void while the federal law remains valid. The government operates a two-party system of Democrats and Republicans, which does not mean only two parties exist but that only two are strong enough to alternate in government, so that it is not unusual for one party to control the Presidency while the other dominates Congress. The constitution is rigid, James Madison defending the difficult procedure as guarding equally against the extreme facility which would render the constitution too mutable and the extreme difficulty which might perpetuate discovered faults; in over two hundred years it has been amended about twenty five times, the first amendment securing freedom of speech and peaceful assembly, the fourth forbidding search without a warrant, the fifth replacing the right to pursuit of happiness with the right to property, the eighth securing against excessive bail, and the fourteenth prohibiting discrimination on the basis of colour. Under the presidential system the President, who has the whole country as his constituency, is elected separately for a fixed term of four years and separately from the Congress.

Key facts to remember

- The Declaration of Independence (1776) was drafted by a committee of the Second Continental Congress headed by Thomas Jefferson. George Washington led the War of Independence and became the first President.
- The Articles of Confederation and Perpetual Union: adopted November 1777, operated until March 1789. Its limits: no Executive branch; Congress could not levy tax; no central army, only state militia; members of Congress were recallable delegates.
- Virginia Plan = representation by population/revenue; New Jersey Plan = revision of the Articles. The Connecticut (Great) Compromise of 1787: equal senators per state, lower house by population.
- Alexander Hamilton on Article II: aimed at 'energy in the Executive'. Richard Neustadt on separation of powers: 'separated institutions sharing power'. Senate = 6-year terms with partial renewal after two years; House = biennially.
- Checks and balances examples: the President's veto, the Senate's power to confirm appointments, the Judiciary's power to review laws. Judicial review = power of the court to render legislative and executive acts null and void if they violate the constitution.
- Amendments: 1st = speech and peaceful assembly; 4th = no search without warrant; 5th = replaced pursuit of happiness with right to property; 8th = no excessive bail; 14th = no discrimination on the basis of colour. The President is elected for a fixed 4-year term, separately from Congress.

How this shows up in CBT

Expect the Articles of Confederation's specific limitations listed, the Virginia/New Jersey plans and the Connecticut Compromise distinguished, Hamilton and Neustadt matched to their phrase, and the numbered amendments matched to what each secures.

MODULE 5

Theories of Political and Social Change

Unit 1: Spectrum of Political Attitudes

No coherent explanation of political change is complete without knowing the direction and the values inherent in that change. The conventional approach is to arrange the terms radical, liberal, moderate, conservative and reactionary along a continuum, since citizens occupying each point have an attitude about whether change is necessary in the existing state of affairs, and it is that attitude which determines the policies they support or oppose. Four things are relevant to understanding political change. The first is direction -- whether the proposed change is progressive or retrogressive, whether it will carry society forward or backward. The second is depth -- whether the change amounts to a major or minor adjustment, and whether it would modify or replace an institution fundamental to society as it now exists. The third is speed: the more dissatisfied people are with the status quo, the more impatient they are likely to be and the more rapidly they want change. The fourth is method -- whether change occurs peacefully or violently, legally or extra-legally, political change having been achieved illegally in Russia in 1917 and China in 1949. Movement along the spectrum should be devoid of emotional or moral values, since new changes may be positive or negative. A radical sits on the extreme left, is impatient with less than extreme proposals, and favours immediate and fundamental change -- that is, all radicals favour revolutionary change. Liberals are close to the status quo point and therefore significantly less dissatisfied than radicals; they support the basic features of society but are quick to recognise weakness and anxious to reform the system. One of the most fundamental differences between a radical and a liberal is the attitude of each toward the law: radicals, opposed to the political system that governs them, often see law as a way in which those who dominate society maintain their control, whereas liberals generally respect the concept of law. Moderates are fundamentally satisfied with society, agree there is room for improvement, but insist that changes be made gradually and that none be so extreme as to disrupt society. Conservatives are the most supportive of the status quo and reluctant to see it changed, supporting it not so much because they like it but because they believe it is the best that can be achieved now; lacking confidence in society's ability to achieve improvements through bold policy initiatives, they support only very slow and superficial alterations, the most cautious of them resisting even seemingly minor change. Of all the political attitudes, only reactionaries propose retrogressive changes, returning society to a previous condition or a former value system -- as when the Shah of Iran was overthrown in 1979 and the government headed by Ayatollah Khomeini returned the country to the pre-Shah era; reactionaries reject the notion of social progress as defined by those to their left and look backwards with nostalgia to previously held norms. On specific issues, the left is inclined toward personal liberty as conceived in human rights while the right emphasises economic or property rights and regards property right as inalienable. On rationalism, right-wing attitudes tend toward irrationalism, conservatives believing in the known, tried and tested methods of society and not usually accepting that human beings can improve upon existing conditions, while the left believes in human rationality

and contends that Marxism is anchored on the scientific method. On nationalism, rightists believe in nationalism and metaphysical thinking while leftists believe in internationalism, insisting national frontiers are artificial and meant to promote exploitation, the boundary they recognise being human and not geographical. On equality, the left is equalitarian minded whilst the right is elitist: rightists argue society is stratified and human beings unevenly endowed, some innately superior to others, while leftists argue men have equal talent or latent ability, that once developed each must be given equal opportunities to contribute, and that if an individual's talent is not developed it is not the individual that suffers but the society as a whole. Many suspect economic pressures are the primary motivating factors determining a citizen's political position, with other factors including age, educational status, psychological disposition and sex. The elderly, having limited time to live, bother less about change whose impact they may not live to enjoy, while the youths view change as affecting their future -- making the youths the fuel and raw materials for change and the old the major force that resists it. The educated can properly evaluate the content, method and impact of a proposed change, and since the bulk of the property class is educated their attitude is influenced by the desire to preserve their interests; the uneducated lack the advantage of thoroughly weighing the merits and demerits of change, a factor that makes the probability of their plunging society into change higher.

Key facts to remember

- The political spectrum runs: radical (extreme left), liberal, moderate, conservative, reactionary. All radicals favour immediate, fundamental -- that is, revolutionary -- change.
- 4 criteria for understanding political change: DIRECTION (progressive or retrogressive), DEPTH (major or minor), SPEED (the more dissatisfied, the more rapid), METHOD (peaceful/violent, legal/extra-legal -- e.g. Russia 1917, China 1949).
- The fundamental difference between a radical and a liberal is their attitude to THE LAW: radicals see law as a tool of domination; liberals respect the concept of law.
- Conservatives support the status quo not because they like it, but because they believe it is the best achievable now. ONLY reactionaries propose retrogressive change (e.g. Khomeini returning Iran to the pre-Shah era after 1979).
- Left vs right: left emphasises human rights, rationality, internationalism and equality; right emphasises property rights (as inalienable), tried-and-tested institutions, nationalism and elitism.
- Factors shaping political position: economic pressures (primary), plus age, education, psychological disposition and sex. Youths are the fuel and raw materials for change; the old are the major force that resists it.

How this shows up in CBT

Expect the five spectrum positions matched to their attitude to change, the 4 criteria (direction, depth, speed, method) listed, the radical-vs-liberal difference over law tested, and left/right contrasts on rights, rationalism, nationalism and equality distinguished.

Unit 2: Major Political Ideologies

Ideologies were made necessary by the challenges of the Age of Enlightenment, when people came to believe they could improve their conditions by taking positive action instead of passively accepting life as it came; before the modern era politics had not been democratized and was reserved for kings heading a small ruling class, but this changed with the democratization of politics and the upheavals of the Industrial Revolution. Political scientists do not agree on an exact definition. Frederick Watkins suggests ideology comes almost entirely from the political extremes, is always opposed to the status quo, proposes an abrupt change in the existing order, and is usually militant, revolutionary and violent, as well as simplistic, utopian and displaying great faith in man's potential -- the American Declaration of Independence authored by Thomas Jefferson and the Communist Manifesto written by Marx and Engels both falling within this definition. David Ingersoll suggests each ideology includes an assessment of the status quo and a view of the future; Karl Marx argues ideology is nothing more than a fabrication used by the ruling class to justify their rule over the masses, so the dominant ideas of any society always reflect ruling-class interests; and L. T. Sargent argues ideologies are based on the value systems of societies and provide the believer with a picture of the world both as it is and as it should be. What these definitions share is that ideology is primarily a political term and consists of a view of the present and a vision of the future. Capitalism developed from Adam Smith's notion of the 'invisible hands' in *The Wealth of Nations* (1776), which advocated the principle of *Laissez-Faire* -- that government should remain aloof of economic matters and allow the forces of demand and supply to direct the economy, thereby encouraging competition. Competition is the engine of the capitalist system because it rests on the assumption that the good of the whole is best served when each person pursues his or her own self interest. Capitalism may be defined as an economic system under which the ownership of the means of production is concentrated in the hands of a minor section of society, and according to Awolowo it has four basic concepts: private property, choice, equality and egoistic altruism -- the last, what Smith called the invisible hands, suggesting that while pursuing his own economic interest every individual unconsciously promotes at the same time the economic interest of others. Historically capitalism developed after the collapse of the feudal system, its springboard being the Industrial Revolution in 18th century England, where mechanization replaced human labour and led to mass production; it is related to democracy since both emphasize freedom of choice and individualism, and although it originated in Europe the United States is today regarded as the bastion of capitalism. According to Marx and Engels, socialism is an intermediate stage between capitalism and communism; it is not only an economic system but a movement and complex ideology embracing social, political and moral philosophy, and it has three basic features: public ownership of the means of production, distribution and finance; the establishment of a welfare state; and a socialist intent. Planning is central to socialism and the traditional way to socialize an economy is by nationalization, though socialists are wary of it since some industries are best run by the private sector. The principle of socialist intent sets the goal of making citizens free from material dependence, and where scarcity under capitalism makes people compete acutely, under socialism co-operation is expected to replace competition, leading to greater productivity and the disappearance of class differences; socialism is in

this sense the economic equivalent of democracy, being to the individual economically what democracy is to the individual politically. Its major problem is its many variants: scientific socialism follows the doctrinaire exposition of Marx and Engels, while the Utopian socialism of Saint Simon and Robert Owen sought socialist ends through peaceful means, and differences of interpretation contributed to the Sino-Soviet rift of the 1950s; in Africa, Nyerere of Tanzania and Kaunda of Zambia toyed with African socialism as Ujamaa and Humanism respectively, while Awolowo advocated Democratic Socialism in Nigeria -- hence the saying that not all socialists are Marxists, but all Marxists are socialists. Communism is based on the doctrine developed by Marx and Engels in *The Communist Manifesto* of 1848, interpreting history as a relentless war between the wealthy and those who must work to earn a living, and teaching that the economy is the foundation of society while politics, religion and the rest form a superstructure determined by economic factors. The deep-seated conflict between these groups leads to class war in which the proletariat will emerge victorious, establish its hegemony and create a true socialist commonwealth; since those who control power use it to perpetuate their dynasty, the democratic utopia can only be attained through revolutionary or violent means, and as a first step a dictatorship of the proletariat is installed to eliminate all differences before the state apparatus disappears. A major feature of communism is the dominance of a one-party organization -- in the Soviet Union arguments could be made only about the interpretation of Marxism-Leninism, not about alternatives to it -- complemented by central economic planning, a strong bureaucracy and considerable curtailment of freedom, until the emergence of Mikhail Gorbachev in 1985, whose ideas of Glasnost and Perestroika ultimately led to the collapse of the Soviet communist state and the abandonment of the ideology.

Key facts to remember

- Ideologies arose from the challenges of the Age of Enlightenment. Frederick Watkins: ideology comes from the political extremes, is always opposed to the status quo, and is usually militant, revolutionary and violent. Karl Marx: ideology is a fabrication used by the ruling class to justify its rule.
- Capitalism comes from Adam Smith's 'invisible hands' in *The Wealth of Nations* (1776) and the principle of Laissez-Faire. Competition is its engine: the good of the whole is best served when each pursues his own self interest.
- Awolowo: capitalism's 4 basic concepts are private property, choice, equality and egoistic altruism (while pursuing his own interest each individual unconsciously promotes the interest of others).
- Socialism = an intermediate stage between capitalism and communism (Marx and Engels). Its 3 features: public ownership of production/distribution/finance; a welfare state; socialist intent. Planning is central; nationalization is the traditional method. Under socialism co-operation replaces competition.
- Variants of socialism: scientific (Marx and Engels) vs Utopian (Saint Simon and Robert Owen -- peaceful means). African socialism: Nyerere's Ujamaa (Tanzania), Kaunda's Humanism (Zambia), Awolowo's Democratic Socialism (Nigeria). 'Not all socialists are Marxists, but all Marxists are socialists'.

- Communism: from The Communist Manifesto (1848). The economy is the foundation; politics and religion are superstructure. A dictatorship of the proletariat comes first, before the state withers. Major feature: one-party dominance. Gorbachev (1985) introduced Glasnost and Perestroika.

How this shows up in CBT

Expect the 3 ideologies (capitalism, socialism, communism) matched to their defining features and named theorists, Awolowo's 4 concepts of capitalism and socialism's 3 features listed, and Ujamaa/Humanism matched to Nyerere and Kaunda.

Unit 3: Revolution and Social Change

A revolution is a sudden or abrupt change in the social structure of a society, distinct from evolution, which is a gradual stage-by-stage progression from one level to another; revolution is an unusual and often unorthodox means of effecting change. Following Nisbet, a revolution is political in character: it is concerned with the calculated overthrow of an existing political order, using as much force and terror as are deemed necessary to effect radical changes in men's moral, economic, social and intellectual lives. For a revolution to succeed it requires two further prerequisites -- religious zeal or mentality, and military tactics -- since without an almost messianic preoccupation the Jacobins would not have carried out the French Revolution, just as Lenin was clear about his doctrine in The State and Revolution before leading the Bolshevik Revolution. A revolution never occurs unless the objective conditions are ripe: poverty, political deprivation or exclusion, and social injustice, with lack of access to basic human needs being a prime cause, especially when poor people see others living much better. As John Kennedy put it, those who make peaceful change impossible make violent change inevitable. Contrary to popular impression, a revolution is not necessarily spontaneous; it has to be planned and led to be meaningful and enduring. In Russia, Lenin encountered Marx's work while exiled in Siberia in 1898 and became an apostle of Marxism; the Russian Marxist movement split, the Mensheviks under Georgie Plekhanov, the father of Russian Marxism, insisting as orthodox Marxists that the dialectic had to run its full course and that feudal Russia was not ripe for revolution, while the Bolsheviks under Lenin rejected this as too dogmatic and argued that the proletariat and peasantry could join forces to take control of the state. Lenin restored violence to the doctrine, amended the theory to apply to underdeveloped states, and filled the blank space Marx left about post-revolution society. He held that violence alone would bring meaningful change; that the proletariat would not develop class-consciousness without the intervention of a revolutionary group, since someone must ignite the revolution; that socialism could be imposed by a minority -- a revolutionary vanguard, small, disciplined and totally dedicated; that the vanguard in Russia was the Bolshevik party, renamed the Communist Party in 1918; and he created the International Communist Movement. He succeeded in October 1917, leading to the formation of the USSR, and died in 1924. In China, the Communist Party was founded in 1921 and Mao Tse-tung, born in 1893, wrote Report on the Hunan Peasant Movement calling on Communists to abandon the cities for the countryside because the peasants, not

the proletariat, were China's true revolutionaries. Facing annihilation by the Nationalists, the Communists embarked on the Long March: about 100,000 set out over 6,000 miles and only 35,000 survived, establishing a new base in Shensi province, and in 1949 Mao led the peasants to overthrow the Nationalist government. Maoism introduced a five year plan attacking absentee landlords and socializing the economy; allowed criticism of government under the phrase 'let a hundred flowers bloom, let a hundred schools contend'; believed in permanent revolution and mass movement rather than bureaucratization; rejected Lenin's elitist reliance on the party with the slogan 'red over expert', calling the masses the last line of defence of the revolution; and believed in guerrilla warfare, identifying two inseparable objectives, military and political, since political power also flows from the barrel of the gun -- the first military goal being to preserve oneself and destroy the enemy, the only thing essential to the guerrilla being the safe zone, and the political injunction being to surround the cities with the countryside. In Cuba, Fidel Castro, born in 1927, failed to seize a military installation in 1953, was imprisoned and released in 1955, went into exile in Mexico and returned in 1956, building a following among the peasantry to whom he promised land reform, and through guerrilla warfare toppled the dictator Fulgencio Batista in December 1959; his government faced United States hostility peaking in the Kennedy-sponsored Bay of Pigs insurrection of 1961 and the Cuban Missile Crisis, yet the revolution recorded modest achievements in education, public health, racial equality and agriculture, especially sugar-cane production. In the third world during the cold war, the typical revolutionary movement was a communist insurgency based in the countryside, though many such conflicts had little to do with global communism or imperialism and were in reality local power struggles between rural ethnic groups into which the great powers were drawn; the end of the Cold War in 1989 and the collapse of the Soviet Union in 1991 reduced the appeal of communist-directed revolution. In the Arab world, potent movements draw on fundamentalist interpretations of Islamic doctrine, launched successfully in Iran in 1979 and Afghanistan in 1982, with groups such as Hezbollah running schools and hospitals and controlling 12 seats in Lebanon's parliament as at 2001. In Africa, where colonialism created artificial boundaries at variance with ethnic divisions, revolutionary claims often have a strong primordial base, as in the secession of Eritrea from Ethiopia; Claude Ake, in *Revolutionary Pressures in Africa*, identified neo-colonial dependency as the most salient feature of the post-colonial African state and concluded that the class war can only be ended through socialist revolution. The Egyptian Revolution was launched in 1952 by Gamal Abdul Nasser, who led the army to overthrow King Farouk, widening the state sector and nationalizing heavy industries, big banks and the Suez Canal in 1956 in pursuit of Arab socialism. In Ghana, Nkrumah's demand for 'Self-Government Now', against Danquah's 'Self-Government within the shortest possible time', made Ghana the first black African country to gain independence in 1957. The 1974 Ethiopian Revolution was initiated by the military acting in its own immediate interests before spreading to the civilian population, and was led by Colonel Mengistu Haile Mariam, who ousted Emperor Haile Selassie. Liberation struggles took the form of guerrilla warfare: in Algeria the FLN under Ahmed Ben Bella provided the military vanguard while Frantz Fanon supplied the intellectual sinew; in Zimbabwe Robert Mugabe and Joshua Nkomo led the Patriotic Front, an amalgam of ZANU and ZAPU; Samora Machel piloted the struggle in Mozambique and Sam Nujoma in Namibia; and in South Africa the African National Congress, after being unbanned and Nelson Mandela released in

1990, achieved majority rule in 1994. Not all liberation struggles entailed large-scale violence -- independence was negotiated in Nigeria, Sierra Leone and Gambia -- and African revolution also took internal forms, as in the overthrow of Mobutu Sese Seko of Zaire by Laurent Kabila.

Key facts to remember

- Revolution = a sudden or abrupt change in social structure; evolution = gradual, stage-by-stage progression. Nisbet: revolution is political in character -- the calculated overthrow of an existing political order using force and terror. It must be PLANNED and LED, not spontaneous.
- Conditions that make revolution inevitable: poverty, political deprivation/exclusion, social injustice. John Kennedy: 'those who make peaceful change impossible make violent change inevitable'. Two further prerequisites: religious zeal and military tactics.
- Russia: Mensheviks (Georgie Plekhanov, orthodox -- Russia not ripe, still feudal) vs Bolsheviks (Lenin -- proletariat and peasantry could combine). Lenin's revolutionary VANGUARD; the Bolshevik party was renamed the Communist Party in 1918; revolution October 1917; Lenin died 1924.
- China: CPC founded 1921; Mao (b.1893) wrote Report on the Hunan Peasant Movement -- the PEASANTS, not the proletariat, were China's true revolutionaries. Long March: 100,000 set out, 6,000 miles, only 35,000 survived. Revolution 1949.
- Maoism: 'let a hundred flowers bloom, let a hundred schools contend'; 'red over expert' (rejecting Lenin's party elitism); permanent revolution; guerrilla warfare -- 'political power also flows from the barrel of the gun', 'surround the cities with the countryside'.
- Cuba: Castro overthrew Fulgencio Batista in December 1959; Bay of Pigs, 1961. Egypt: Nasser overthrew King Farouk in 1952, nationalised the Suez Canal in 1956. Ghana: Nkrumah's 'Self-Government Now' -- first black African independence, 1957. Ethiopia: Mengistu ousted Haile Selassie, 1974 (military-initiated).

How this shows up in CBT

Expect revolution vs evolution distinguished, the Menshevik/Bolshevik split and Lenin's modifications tested, Mao's slogans and Long March figures matched, and each national revolution matched to its leader, ousted ruler and date.